

Maximum Likelihood Estimation (MLE)

Complete Exam Answer Guide

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Based strictly on IGNOU MTE-04 Unit 10 & Stanford CS109 Lecture Notes

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What is point estimation? Define with an example: (1) Estimator (2) Estimate

Point Estimation

When we find a single value with the help of sample observations which is taken as the estimated value of an unknown population parameter, this value is known as a point estimate and the technique of estimating the unknown parameter with a single value is known as **point estimation**.

Example: If we estimate the average weight of men in a colony on the basis of the sample mean as 62 kg, then 62 kg is the point estimate of the average weight of all men in the colony.

(1) Estimator

An estimator is a rule or formula (a statistic) used to estimate the unknown population parameter. It is a function of the sample observations — not a single number, but the rule that produces one.

Example: $\bar{x} = (1/n) * \sum(X_i)$ is an estimator of the population mean μ . It is the formula itself, applicable to any sample.

(2) Estimate

An estimate is the specific numerical value the estimator produces when applied to a particular sample. It is one realised number.

Example: After applying the formula to our sample, if we get 62 kg, then 62 kg is the estimate. The estimator is the formula; the estimate is its result.

Exam tip: Estimator = the formula/rule. Estimate = the actual number produced. Always state this distinction clearly in your answer.

What is Interval Estimation? Define: (1) Null Hypothesis (2) Alternate Hypothesis (3) Simple Hypothesis (4) Composite Hypothesis

Interval Estimation

Instead of finding a single value to estimate the unknown parameter, if we find two values between which the parameter may be considered to lie with a certain probability (confidence), this is known as an **interval estimate** and the technique is called **interval estimation**.

Confidence Interval = Sample Mean $\pm$ Margin of Error

C% of such intervals will capture the true population mean μ

Example: If we estimate the average weight of men in an interval [40, 110] with 90% confidence that the actual average weight of all men lies in this interval, then [40, 110] is the interval estimate.

(1) Null Hypothesis (H_0)

The null hypothesis is the statement that is presumed to be true. It always contains equality ($=$, $\geq$, $\leq$). It has no burden of proof.

Example: $H_0: \mu = 200$ (production rate has not changed)

(2) Alternate Hypothesis (H_1)

The alternate hypothesis carries the burden of proof. It contains strict inequality (not $=$, $>$, $<$). Accepted only when H_0 is rejected.

Example: $H_1: \mu \neq 200$ (production rate has changed)

(3) Simple Hypothesis

A hypothesis that completely specifies the distribution — it specifies the exact value of ALL parameters.

Example: $H_0: \mu = 50$ AND $\sigma^2 = 4$ (both parameters specified)

(4) Composite Hypothesis

A hypothesis that does NOT completely specify the distribution — at least one parameter is given as a range rather than a single value.

Example: $H_0: \mu \geq 50$ (parameter given as range, not single value)

Define steps performed in MLE with proper statistical justification. Mention Properties of MLE.

What is MLE?

Maximum Likelihood Estimation (MLE) is one of the most important methods of point estimation. The principle of MLE is to find / estimate / choose the value of the unknown parameter which would **most likely generate the observed data**. The initial concept was given by Prof. C.F. Gauss but it was used as a general method by **Prof. Ronald A. Fisher in 1912**.

$$\hat{\theta} = \arg \max L(\theta) = \arg \max LL(\theta)$$

$\hat{\theta}$ is the MLE estimate; L is likelihood; LL is log-likelihood

4 Steps of MLE — With Statistical Justification

1 Write the Likelihood Function $L(\theta)$

Since data $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ is IID (independent and identically distributed), the joint probability is the product of individual probabilities. For discrete: $L(\theta) = \text{Product of } P[X=x_i]$. For continuous: $L(\theta) = \text{Product of } f(x_i, \theta)$. Justification: the independence of observations allows multiplication of individual probabilities.

2 Take the Log — Get $LL(\theta) = \log L(\theta)$

$LL(\theta) = \text{Sum of } \log f(X_i | \theta)$. Justification: $\log$ is a monotonically increasing function, so the $\arg \max$ of $L(\theta)$ is IDENTICAL to the $\arg \max$ of $\log L(\theta)$. The product becomes a sum, which is far easier to differentiate. This is the key mathematical trick that makes MLE tractable.

3 Differentiate and Set Equal to Zero

Compute $d(LL)/d(\theta) = 0$. This gives the likelihood equation. Solve it for θ to get the MLE estimate $\hat{\theta}$. Justification: A necessary condition for a maximum of any differentiable function is that its first derivative equals zero at that point.

4 Verify it is a Maximum (Not a Minimum)

Check that $d^2(LL)/d(\theta)^2 < 0$ at $\theta = \hat{\theta}$. Justification: A negative second derivative confirms the stationary point is a maximum. For two parameters (e.g. Normal with μ and σ^2), the Hessian matrix of second-order partial derivatives must be negative semi-definite.

7 Properties of MLE Estimators

1 Asymptotically Unbiased

Not necessarily unbiased for small samples. But as n goes to infinity, $E(\hat{\theta})$ goes to θ . The bias disappears as sample size grows. Example: if $E(\hat{\theta}) = \theta + 1/n$, then as n increases, the term $1/n$ vanishes.

2 Asymptotically Consistent

For any $\epsilon > 0$: $P(|\hat{\theta} - \theta| < \epsilon)$ goes to 1 as n goes to infinity. In plain terms: with enough data, the estimate converges to the true value in probability.

3 Asymptotically Efficient

When it exists, the MLE has the smallest variance among all consistent estimators in the large sample limit. It achieves the Cramer-Rao lower bound asymptotically.

4 Linked to Sufficient Statistics

If a sufficient statistic for θ exists for the distribution, the MLE will always be a function of that sufficient statistic.

5 Invariance Property

If $\hat{\theta}$ is the MLE of θ and $\gamma(\theta)$ is any one-to-one function of θ , then $\gamma(\hat{\theta})$ is the MLE of $\gamma(\theta)$. Example: for exponential distribution, $\hat{\theta} = 1/\bar{x}$, so the MLE of e^θ is $e^{1/\bar{x}}$.

6 Not Necessarily Unique

Multiple values of θ may maximise the likelihood equally. Uniqueness of the MLE is not guaranteed.

7 Asymptotically Normally Distributed

Under regularity conditions, the MLE follows a normal distribution asymptotically. This makes it easy to construct confidence intervals in large samples.

What is MLE? Generalise the steps involved in getting the MLE of an estimate. Mention Properties of MLE.

Definition of MLE

MLE is a method that determines parameter values in such a way that they maximise the likelihood that the process described by the model produced the data that were actually observed. It is one of the most important methods of point estimation because it generally gives very good estimators which possess most of the important properties of a good estimator.

Likelihood vs Probability — The Key Distinction

The likelihood function and the joint density function have the same functional form, but with opposite interpretations:

Joint density $f(x_1, \dots, x_n \mid \theta)$

Parameters θ are FIXED and KNOWN.
The data is the variable. Answers: what data is probable given θ ?

Likelihood $L(\theta \mid x_1, \dots, x_n)$

Data is FIXED and OBSERVED. Parameters θ are the variable. Answers: which θ is most plausible given this data?

$$L(\theta) = \text{Product}[f(x_i \mid \theta)] \text{ for } i = 1 \text{ to } n$$

Likelihood function — product of PMF/PDF across all n data points

$$LL(\theta) = \log L(\theta) = \text{Sum}[\log f(x_i \mid \theta)]$$

Log-likelihood — product becomes sum; same arg max by monotonicity of log

The generalised steps and the 7 properties are identical to Q3 above. For a 10-mark answer: write all 4 steps with full statistical justification (as in Q3), then write all 7 properties with one example for the invariance property.

Special case: When calculus fails (parameter in the support, e.g. Uniform distribution), use the basic MLE principle directly. For $\text{Uniform}(0, \theta)$: $\hat{\theta} = x_{(n)} = \text{largest observation}$. This is because $L(\theta) = (1/\theta)^n$ is maximised when θ is minimised, and the minimum possible value consistent with all data points is the maximum observation.

Define Unbiasedness. Test whether the following are unbiased estimators of μ : $T_1 = (X_1 + X_2)/2 + X_3$ $T_2 = (X_1 + X_2 + X_3)/3$ $T_3 = (X_1 + 3X_2)/9 + 5X_3$ $T_4 = X_1 - X_2 + X_3$

Definition of Unbiasedness

An estimator T is said to be an **unbiased estimator** of the population parameter θ if the expected value of T equals θ for all values of θ :

$$E(T) = \theta \text{ for all } \theta$$

If $E(T) \neq \theta$, T is biased. The bias = $E(T) - \theta$.

Assumption: X_1, X_2, X_3 are IID random variables with $E(X_i) = \mu$ for all i . We test whether each estimator has expected value = μ .

Testing Each Estimator

$$T_1 = (X_1 + X_2)/2 + X_3$$

$$E(T_1) = E[(X_1 + X_2)/2] + E(X_3) = (1/2)\mu + (1/2)\mu + \mu = 2\mu$$

$E(T_1) = 2\mu$ which is NOT equal to $\mu \rightarrow T_1$ is BIASED (bias = μ)

$$T_2 = (X_1 + X_2 + X_3) / 3$$

$$E(T_2) = (1/3)E(X_1) + (1/3)E(X_2) + (1/3)E(X_3) = (1/3)\mu + (1/3)\mu + (1/3)\mu = \mu$$

$E(T_2) = \mu \rightarrow T_2$ is UNBIASED (This is simply the sample mean $\bar{x}$)

$$T_3 = (X_1 + 3X_2)/9 + 5X_3$$

$$E(T_3) = (1/9)E(X_1) + (3/9)E(X_2) + 5E(X_3) = (1/9)\mu + (3/9)\mu + 5\mu = \mu(1/9 + 3/9 + 45/9) = (49/9)\mu$$

$E(T_3) = (49/9)\mu$ which is NOT equal to $\mu \rightarrow T_3$ is BIASED

$$T_4 = X_1 - X_2 + X_3$$

$$E(T_4) = E(X_1) - E(X_2) + E(X_3) = \mu - \mu + \mu = \mu$$

$E(T_4) = \mu \rightarrow T_4$ is UNBIASED

Summary Table

Estimator	$E(T)$	Unbiased?
$T_1 = (X_1 + X_2)/2 + X_3$	2μ	NO — biased by μ
$T_2 = (X_1 + X_2 + X_3)/3$	μ	YES
$T_3 = (X_1 + 3X_2)/9 + 5X_3$	$(49/9)\mu$	NO — biased by $(40/9)\mu$
$T_4 = X_1 - X_2 + X_3$	μ	YES

Quick check rule: Sum all the coefficients of X_1 , X_2 , X_3 in the estimator. If they add up to 1, the estimator is unbiased. T_2 : $1/3 + 1/3 + 1/3 = 1$ (Unbiased) | T_4 : $1 - 1 + 1 = 1$ (Unbiased) | T_1 : $1/2 + 1/2 + 1 = 2$ (Biased) | T_3 : $1/9 + 3/9 + 5 = 49/9$ (Biased)

**Explain Efficiency. Define Relative Efficiency and mention all 3 conditions.
Explain Consistency in detail and mention its properties.**

Efficiency

Among all unbiased estimators of a parameter, the one with the **smallest variance** is called the most efficient estimator (or Minimum Variance Unbiased Estimator — MVUE). An estimator T1 is said to be more efficient than T2 if both are unbiased and $\text{Var}(T1) < \text{Var}(T2)$.

Relative Efficiency

The relative efficiency of T1 with respect to T2 is:

$$e(T1, T2) = \text{Var}(T2) / \text{Var}(T1)$$

Ratio of variances — higher ratio means T1 extracts more information

Three conditions for relative efficiency:

Condition 1	If $e(T1, T2) > 1$, then T1 is MORE efficient than T2. $\text{Var}(T1) < \text{Var}(T2)$.
Condition 2	If $e(T1, T2) = 1$, then T1 and T2 are EQUALLY efficient. $\text{Var}(T1) = \text{Var}(T2)$.
Condition 3	If $e(T1, T2) < 1$, then T2 is MORE efficient than T1. $\text{Var}(T2) < \text{Var}(T1)$.

Consistency

An estimator T is said to be a **consistent estimator** of theta if it converges in probability to theta as the sample size n goes to infinity. Formally, for any $\epsilon > 0$:

$$\lim P(|T_n - \theta| < \epsilon) = 1 \text{ as } n \text{ goes to infinity}$$

In plain terms: with enough data, the estimator gets arbitrarily close to the true value

Properties of consistency:

- If T is an unbiased estimator of theta AND $\text{Var}(T)$ goes to 0 as n goes to infinity, then T is consistent.

- The sample mean $\bar{x}$ is a consistent estimator of μ (follows from the Law of Large Numbers).
- The sample variance s^2 is a consistent estimator of σ^2 .
- If T is consistent for θ , then $g(T)$ is consistent for $g(\theta)$ for any continuous function g .
- All MLE estimators are asymptotically consistent under standard regularity conditions.

Explain Sufficiency and Efficiency. Prove that $2\bar{x}$ is an unbiased estimate for θ when sampling from $\text{Uniform}(0, \theta)$.

Sufficiency

A statistic $T(X_1, \dots, X_n)$ is called a sufficient statistic for θ if the conditional distribution of the sample GIVEN T does not depend on θ . T captures all the information the sample contains about θ .

Efficiency (recap)

Among all unbiased estimators, the most efficient has minimum variance. The MLE estimator is asymptotically the most efficient (Property 3 of MLE). An estimator is fully efficient if it achieves the Cramer-Rao lower bound.

From MLE notes: if a sufficient statistic exists, the MLE will be a function of it (Property 4 of MLE).

$e(T_1, T_2) = \text{Var}(T_2)/\text{Var}(T_1)$. If > 1 : T_1 more efficient. If $= 1$: equally efficient.

Proof: $2\bar{x}$ is Unbiased for θ ($\text{Uniform}(0, \theta)$)

Let $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ be a random sample from $\text{Uniform}(0, \theta)$. The PDF is $f(x, \theta) = 1/\theta$ for $0 \leq x \leq \theta$.

Step 1: Find $E(X)$ for $\text{Uniform}(0, \theta)$

$$E(X) = \int_0^\theta x \cdot \left(\frac{1}{\theta}\right) dx = \left(\frac{1}{\theta}\right) \cdot \left[\frac{x^2}{2}\right]_0^\theta = \left(\frac{1}{\theta}\right) \cdot \left(\frac{\theta^2}{2}\right) = \theta/2$$

Step 2: Find $E(\bar{x})$

$$E(\bar{x}) = E\left[\frac{1}{n} \cdot \sum(X_i)\right] = \left(\frac{1}{n}\right) \cdot n \cdot E(X) = E(X) = \theta/2$$

Step 3: Find $E(2 \cdot \bar{x})$

$$E(2 \cdot \bar{x}) = 2 \cdot E(\bar{x}) = 2 \cdot (\theta/2) = \theta$$

$E(2 \cdot \bar{x}) = \theta \rightarrow$ Therefore $2\bar{x}$ is an UNBIASED estimator of θ . Proved.

Note: The MLE of θ for $\text{Uniform}(0, \theta)$ is $\hat{\theta} = x_{(n)}$ (maximum observation), which is actually BIASED. But $2\bar{x}$ is an alternative unbiased estimator. Both estimate the same θ .

Explain the difference between Point Estimation and Interval Estimation.

Point Estimation vs Interval Estimation

Aspect	Point Estimation	Interval Estimation
Output	A single number	A range (lower, upper bound)
Example	$\mu\text{-hat} = 62 \text{ kg}$	μ in $[58, 66]$ with 95% confidence
Certainty	No measure of accuracy given	Comes with a confidence level C%
Use case	Quick single-value estimate needed	When accuracy and reliability matter
Methods	MLE, method of moments, least squares	Confidence intervals using Z or t-dist.
Precision	No information about precision	Width of interval shows precision

Key quote from IGNOU notes: 'If we estimate the average weight as 62 kg — that is point estimation. If we estimate it as lying in $[40, 110]$ with 90% confidence — that is interval estimation.' Both estimate the same parameter, but interval estimation provides additional information about precision.

C% of confidence intervals constructed this way will capture the true population mean μ

The confidence level C% is the overall capture rate if the method is used many times

Derive the mathematical expressions for estimating the parameters of a Binomial distribution using MLE. Prove $\hat{p} = \bar{x} / n$.

Setup

Let $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_m$ represent the number of successes in m lots. Each $X_i \sim \text{Binomial}(n, p)$ where n is KNOWN and p is UNKNOWN. We apply MLE to find $\hat{p}$.

$$P[X = x] = nC_x * p^x * (1-p)^{(n-x)} \text{ for } x = 0, 1, 2, \dots, n$$

PMF of Binomial distribution

Step 1 — Write the Likelihood Function $L(p)$

$$\begin{aligned} L(p) &= P[X=x_1] * P[X=x_2] * \dots * P[X=x_m] \\ &= \text{Product of } [nC_{x_i} * p^{x_i} * (1-p)^{(n-x_i)}] \text{ for } i=1 \text{ to } m \\ &\quad \text{IID assumption allows multiplication of individual PMFs} \\ &= [\text{Product of } nC_{x_i}] * p^{(\sum x_i)} * (1-p)^{(mn - \sum x_i)} \\ &\quad \text{Collecting like terms: all } p \text{ terms grouped, all } (1-p) \text{ terms grouped} \end{aligned}$$

Step 2 — Take the Log-Likelihood $LL(p)$

$$\begin{aligned} LL(p) &= \log[\text{Product } nC_{x_i}] + (\sum x_i) * \log(p) + (mn - \sum x_i) * \log(1-p) \\ &\quad \text{The first term is a CONSTANT with respect to } p \text{ — it vanishes when differentiating} \end{aligned}$$

Step 3 — Differentiate and Set Equal to Zero

$$\begin{aligned} d(LL)/dp &= (\sum x_i)/p - (mn - \sum x_i)/(1-p) = 0 \\ \text{Rearranging} &(\sum x_i)(1-p) = (mn - \sum x_i) * p \\ \sum x_i - p \sum x_i &= mn * p - p \sum x_i \\ \text{Simplifying} &\sum x_i = mn * p \\ \text{Solve for } \hat{p} &\hat{p} = \sum(x_i) / (mn) = \bar{x} / n \\ &\text{Since } \bar{x} = (1/m) * \sum(x_i), \text{ therefore } \sum(x_i)/mn = \bar{x}/n \end{aligned}$$

Step 4 — Verify it is a Maximum

$$d^2(LL)/dp^2 = -(\text{Sum } x_i)/p^2 - (mn - \text{Sum } x_i)/(1-p)^2$$

$$\text{At } p = \hat{p} = \bar{x} = \frac{\text{Sum } x_i}{n} \quad = -(\text{Sum } x_i)/\bar{p}^2 - (mn - \text{Sum } x_i)/(1-\bar{p})^2 < 0$$

*Both terms are negative, so the second derivative is negative — confirmed
MAXIMUM*

RESULT PROVED: $\hat{p} = \bar{x} / n$ The MLE of p in the Binomial distribution equals the sample mean divided by n (number of trials). This result appears in 3 separate exam years — it is the most important MLE derivation to memorise.

Explain how mathematically the mean and standard deviation of the Normal distribution are calculated through Maximum Likelihood Estimation.

Setup

Let $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_n$ be IID from $N(\mu, \sigma^2)$. We have TWO parameters to estimate: $\theta_1 = \mu$ (mean) and $\theta_2 = \sigma^2$ (variance). The PDF is:

$$f(x, \mu, \sigma^2) = (1 / \sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}) * \exp[-(x-\mu)^2 / (2\sigma^2)]$$

PDF of Normal distribution

Step 1 — Write the Likelihood Function

$$\begin{aligned} L(\mu, \sigma^2) &= \text{Product of } (1/\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}) * \exp[-(X_i-\mu)^2/(2\sigma^2)] \\ &= (1/(2\pi\sigma^2))^{(n/2)} * \exp[-(1/(2\sigma^2)) * \sum(X_i-\mu)^2] \end{aligned}$$

Step 2 — Log-Likelihood

$$LL(\mu, \sigma^2) = -(n/2)\log(2\pi) - (n/2)\log(\sigma^2) - (1/(2\sigma^2))\sum(X_i-\mu)^2$$

Step 3a — Estimate μ : Differentiate w.r.t. μ

$$\begin{aligned} d(LL)/d(\mu) &= (1/\sigma^2) * \sum(X_i - \mu) = 0 \\ &\text{Setting equal to zero} \end{aligned}$$

$$\text{Simplify} \quad \sum(X_i) - n\mu = 0 \rightarrow \mu\text{-hat} = (1/n) * \sum(X_i) = \bar{x}$$

$\mu\text{-hat} = \bar{x}$ (the sample mean)

Step 3b — Estimate σ^2 : Differentiate w.r.t. σ^2

$$d(LL)/d(\sigma^2) = -n/(2\sigma^2) + (1/(2\sigma^4)) * \sum(X_i-\mu)^2 = 0$$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Multiply by } 2\sigma^4 & \quad -n\sigma^2 + \sum(X_i - \mu)^2 = 0 \end{aligned}$$

Solve

$$\sigma^2\text{-hat} = (1/n) * \sum (X_i - \mu\text{-hat})^2 = (1/n) * \sum (X_i - \bar{x})^2$$

$$\sigma^2\text{-hat} = (1/n) * \sum (X_i - \bar{x})^2 \rightarrow \sigma\text{-hat} = \sqrt{\text{of that}}$$

Step 4 — Verify Both are Maxima (Hessian Check)

$$d^2(LL)/d(\mu)^2 = -n/\sigma^2 < 0 \text{ at } \mu = \bar{x} \text{ (Confirmed maximum for } \mu)$$

$$d^2(LL)/d(\sigma^2)^2 = -n/(2*\sigma^4) < 0 \text{ at } \sigma^2 = s'^2 \text{ (Confirmed maximum for } \sigma^2)$$

$$\text{Hessian determinant} = n^2 / (2*\sigma^6) > 0 \text{ (Joint maximum confirmed)}$$

All three conditions of the Hessian are satisfied. The likelihood function is MAXIMUM at $\mu = \bar{x}$ and $\sigma^2 = s'^2$. Proved. Important note: The MLE divides by n (not $n-1$). The usual sample variance $s^2 = \sum (X_i - \bar{x})^2 / (n-1)$ is unbiased. The MLE $\sigma^2\text{-hat} = \sum (X_i - \bar{x})^2 / n$ is slightly biased but asymptotically unbiased (bias vanishes as n increases).

How to estimate the likelihood function for Binomial distribution for parameter estimation? (Explain with formula)

The Likelihood Function for Binomial Distribution

Let $X_1, X_2, \dots, X_m$ be a random sample from $\text{Binomial}(n, p)$ where n is known. The PMF is:

$$P[X = x] = nC_x * p^x * (1-p)^{(n-x)}$$

PMF of Binomial distribution

Since Binomial is a discrete distribution, the likelihood function is the joint probability — the product of individual PMFs across all m observations:

$$L(p) = \text{Product}[P[X = x_i]] \text{ for } i = 1 \text{ to } m$$

Joint probability of all observations under independence (IID assumption)

$$L(p) = \text{Product}[nC_{x_i} * p^{x_i} * (1-p)^{(n-x_i)}]$$

Substituting the Binomial PMF for each observation

$$L(p) = [\text{Product } nC_{x_i}] * p^{(\text{Sum } x_i)} * (1-p)^{(mn - \text{Sum } x_i)}$$

Collecting like terms: all p 's grouped, all $(1-p)$'s grouped

The Log-Likelihood

Taking the natural log converts the product to a sum:

$$LL(p) = \log[\text{Product } nC_{x_i}] + (\text{Sum } x_i) * \log(p) + (mn - \text{Sum } x_i) * \log(1-p)$$

The first term is a constant w.r.t. p and drops out when differentiating

The likelihood function answers: for which value of p would this exact observed sample have been most probable? Setting $d(LL)/dp = 0$ and solving gives $\hat{p} = \bar{x}/n$ (full derivation in

Q9 above).

The likelihood function $L(p) = \left[\prod n C x_i \right] * p^{(\text{Sum } x_i)} * (1-p)^{(mn - \text{Sum } x_i)}$ is a function of p given fixed data. It is maximised at $\hat{p} = \bar{x}/n$ — the proportion of successes per trial across the sample.